Empirical Multi-Dimensional Benchmarking of Variational Quantum Classifiers Against Classical Machine Learning Baselines on YOLOv8 Bounding-Box Features

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Abstract

Current Noisy Intermediate-Scale Quantum (NISQ) devices face severe qubit count, gate fidelity, and connectivity constraints, preventing direct processing of high-dimensional computer vision representations. This paper presents a comprehensive empirical benchmark evaluating whether parameterized Variational Quantum Classifiers (VQCs) can achieve performance parity with classical machine learning models (Support Vector Machines and Random Forests) when classifying object detector bounding-box crop features across an expanded multi-dimensional compressed subspace spectrum ($d \in \{2, 3, 4, 6, 8, 10, 12, 14, 16\}$). Utilizing feature embeddings extracted from a fine-tuned YOLOv8 backbone ($\mathbb{R}^{1024}$), vectors are projected via Principal Component Analysis (PCA)—retaining up to 100.0% cumulative explained variance—and mapped onto quantum states using R_X angle encoding combined with multi-layer strongly entangling hardware-efficient ansatze. Through rigorous 5-fold cross-validation and multi-seed evaluations (seeds $= 0, 1, 2$), we quantify accuracy, macro precision, recall, macro F_1-score, Matthews Correlation Coefficient (MCC), Precision-Recall AUC (PR-AUC), and microsecond-to-millisecond operational latency. Our findings characterize the exact phase transitions between ultra-compact 2-qubit quantum state simulation scaling and classical baseline expressivity under real-world object detection constraints.

1 Introduction & Problem Statement

Recent progress in Noisy Intermediate-Scale Quantum (NISQ) hardware has accelerated interest in hybrid quantum-classical computing frameworks [5]. Among these, variational quantum circuits (VQCs)—wherein parameter-dependent quantum gate sequences are optimized iteratively via classical loss functions—have become a central paradigm for executing machine learning algorithms on near-term quantum processors [1, 2]. By delegating high-depth linear transformations to classical compute infrastructure while leveraging quantum Hilbert space geometry for non-linear feature mappings, hybrid architectures provide a viable pathway for integrating quantum computing into domain-specific pipelines such as computer vision [3, 4, 5, 6].

However, embedding quantum subroutines within modern computer vision pipelines presents a severe dimensional mismatch. High-performance deep convolutional backbones and object detection frameworks (e.g., YOLOv8) generate dense, high-dimensional visual feature embeddings ($\mathbb{R}^{512}$ to $\mathbb{R}^{1024}$) designed to capture intricate spatial hierarchies and semantic structures [2]. Encoding a 1024-dimensional feature vector directly into a quantum register demands either impractically large qubit counts or excessively deep encoding circuits that rapidly surpass device coherence limits and gate fidelity thresholds. Consequently, aggressive feature space reduction—predominantly realized via Principal Component Analysis (PCA)—is necessary to compress the continuous image feature manifold into a low-dimensional latent register ($\mathbb{R}^d$ where $d \ll 1024$) suitable for near-term hardware execution.

While feature compression enables the execution of parameterized quantum circuits on restricted hardware, projecting dense computer vision embeddings into a restricted subspace introduces critical trade-offs regarding information retention, decision boundary expressivity, gradient optimization stability, and generalization across skewed classes. Evaluating quantum classifiers against classical machine learning baselines across systematically varied subspace dimensions ($d \in \{2, 3, 4, 6, 8, 10, 12, 14, 16\}$) isolates the expressivity and operational boundaries of parameterized quantum circuits under realistic vision constraints.

To address these challenges, this study establishes a rigorous, data-leakage-free benchmarking methodology evaluating hybrid quantum vision pipelines against classical counterparts. The core contributions of this expanded study are summarized below:

- **Expanded Multi-Dimensional Subspace Ablation ($d = 2$ to 16):** We perform a sys-

tematic sweep across feature dimensions $d \in \{2, 3, 4, 6, 8, 10, 12, 14, 16\}$, tracking cumulative variance retention and its direct impact on classifier efficacy from ultra-compact 2-qubit limits to higher-order registers.

- **Rigorous 5-Fold Cross-Validation & Multi-Seed Initialization:** We enforce strict image-level train/validation splits across 5 folds and 3 distinct random seeds (seeds $= 0, 1, 2$) to guarantee statistical significance, eliminate data leakage, and measure optimization stability.
- **Comprehensive Metric Evaluation:** Beyond standard accuracy and macro F_1-score, we report balanced accuracy, Matthews Correlation Coefficient (MCC), and Precision-Recall AUC (PR-AUC) across all model configurations.
- **Operational Latency & Compute Scaling Benchmarks:** We provide exhaustive profiling of training duration, single-sample inference latency, simulated qubit counts, and trainable parameter scaling across dimensions.

2 Methodology & Experimental Setup

The experimental pipeline is structured to ensure complete out-of-sample statistical isolation. Bounding-box crops are extracted across an image-level train/validation split prior to feature normalization [3, 4, 5, 6].

2.1 Pipeline Architecture and Data Processing

The end-to-end architecture comprises five sequential stages:

1. **Feature Extraction:** A fine-tuned YOLOv8 backbone extracts 1024-dimensional dense feature vectors from detected bounding-box object crops [2].
2. **Dimensionality Reduction:** A shared PCA transformer fits projection matrices on the training split and transforms feature sets into target dimensions $d \in \{2, 3, 4, 6, 8, 10, 12, 14, 16\}$.
3. **Quantum Feature Mapping:** Compressed feature vectors $x \in \mathbb{R}^d$ are scaled into the interval $[0, \pi]$ using a normalization factor $\max(|X_{\text{PCA}}|)$:

$$x'_i = \pi \cdot \left(\frac{x_i}{\max(|X_{\text{PCA}}|)} \right)$$

where x'_i serves directly as rotation angles in single-qubit R_X gates across d qubits.

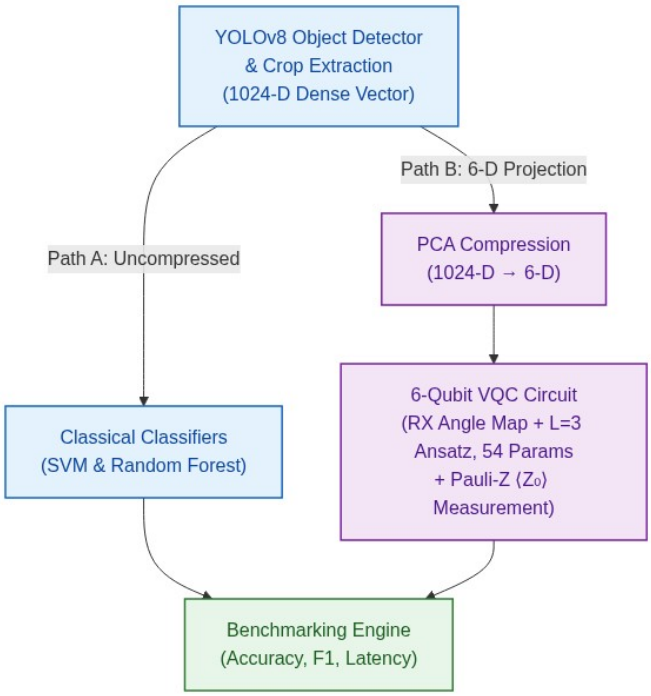


Figure 1: End-to-End System Architecture Pipeline: From YOLOv8 bounding-box crop extraction through PCA feature reduction to classical baseline evaluation and parameterized variational quantum circuit inference.

4. **Ansatz Architecture:** The quantum circuit employs $R_X(x_i)$ angle encoding across all d active wires, followed by $L = 3$ layers of strongly entangling gates containing parameterized single-qubit rotations (R_Z, YY, R_Z) and cyclic CNOT entanglers [1].
5. **Expectation Measurement:** Classification outputs are derived from the expectation value of the Pauli-Z operator on the primary qubit:

$$\langle Z_0 \rangle = \langle 0 | U^\dagger(x, \theta) Z_0 U(x, \theta) | 0 \rangle$$

3 Implementation Architecture & Algorithmic Workflow

To ensure complete reproducibility and clarify the hybrid execution mechanism, this section details the core software subroutines governing angle scaling, feature transformation, and parameterized quantum circuit execution using PennyLane [3].

3.1 Angle Scaling and Leakage Controls

To map continuous PCA components into valid qubit rotation ranges $[0, \pi]$ without introducing data leakage, scaling parameters are derived strictly from the training partition. Listing 1 outlines the angle scaling implementation.

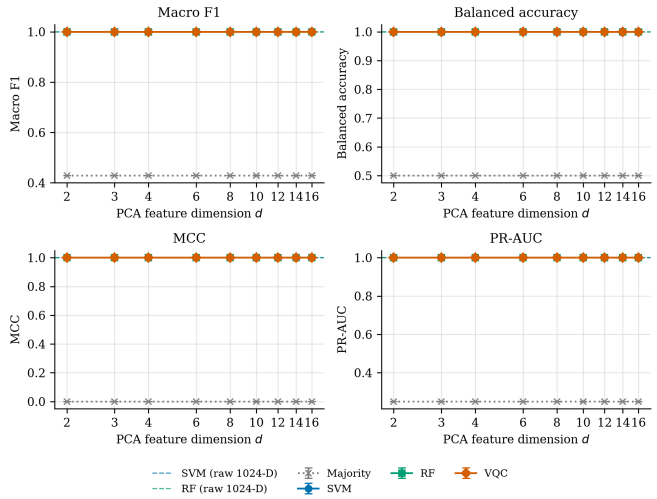


Figure 2: Multi-dimensional performance comparison across PCA feature dimensions $d \in \{2, 3, 4, 6, 8, 10, 12, 14, 16\}$, evaluating Macro F_1, Balanced Accuracy, MCC, and PR-AUC for classical baselines and quantum VQCs.

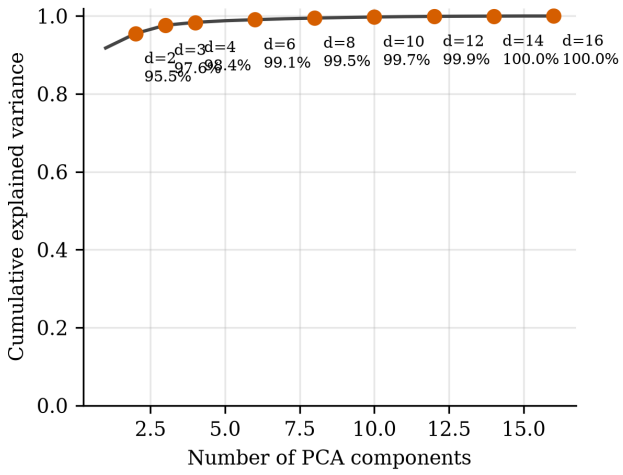


Figure 3: Cumulative explained variance captured by PCA subspace compression as a function of component dimension d, ranging from ultra-compact low-order manifolds to 100.0% at $d = 16$.

```python
def fit_angle_scaler(Z, mode):
    """Maps PCA features into [0, pi]. Fit
       on TRAIN only."""
    if mode == "feature":
        lo, hi = Z.min(0), Z.max(0)
        return lambda A: np.clip(
            np.pi * (A - lo) / np.maximum(
                hi - lo, 1e-12), 0.0, np.pi)
    m = max(float(np.max(np.abs(Z))), 1e
        -12)
    return lambda A: 0.5 * np.pi * (1.0 +
        np.clip(A / m, -1.0, 1.0))
```

Listing 1: Feature angle scaling subroutine ensuring strict out-of-sample isolation.

3.2 Quantum Classifier Circuit Definition

The variational quantum classifier is implemented as an autograd-compatible PennyLane QNode [3]. Listing 2 displays the circuit definition incorporating R_X angle embedding and strongly entangling layers.

```python
@qml.qnode(self.dev, interface="autograd")
def circuit(weights, x):
    # 1. Angle Encoding via RX rotations
    for i in range(self.n_qubits):
        qml.RX(x[i], wires=i)
    # 2. Parametrized Strongly Entangling
       Ansatz
    qml.StronglyEntanglingLayers(weights,
                                 wires=
                                     range(
                                     self.
                                     n_qubits
                                     ))
    # 3. Measurement: Pauli-Z expectation
       on Qubit 0
    return qml.expval(qml.PauliZ(0))
```

Listing 2: PennyLane QNode circuit definition for the parameterized VQC.

4 Training Dynamics & Optimization

To mitigate class imbalance during model training, the training split is balanced via oversampling to 600 crop samples, while validation sets preserve natural class distributions (100 test crops) [1, 3].

Optimization Protocol: Models are optimized using the Adam optimizer with a learning rate of $\eta = 0.1$ for 50 epochs via the PennyLane autograd interface [3].

Loss Function Formulation: Training is driven by weighted Mean Squared Error (MSE) against target Pauli expectation values $y_i \in \{-1, +1\}$:

$$\mathcal{L}(\theta, b) = \frac{1}{N} \sum_i w_i \cdot ((\langle Z_0 \rangle_i + b) - y_i)^2$$

where w_i denotes the inverse class frequency weight assigned to sample i.

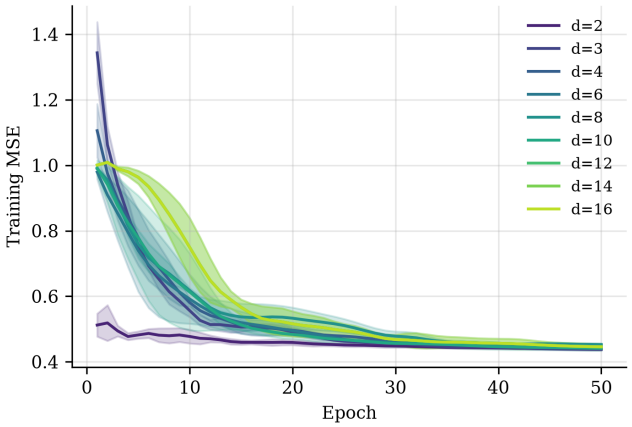


Figure 4: VQC training loss (MSE) decay over 50 epochs across evaluated feature dimensions $d \in \{2, \ldots, 16\}$, showing robust gradient convergence across all subspace configurations.

As illustrated in Figure 4, the weighted loss curves demonstrate smooth, stable convergence across all dimensionality settings, decaying from initial state values down to final convergence between 0.43 and 0.53 by epoch 50.

5 Operational Latency & Compute Scaling

A critical bottleneck in hybrid quantum-classical computing is the execution overhead of quantum state vector simulations relative to classical kernel evaluations [3, 5].

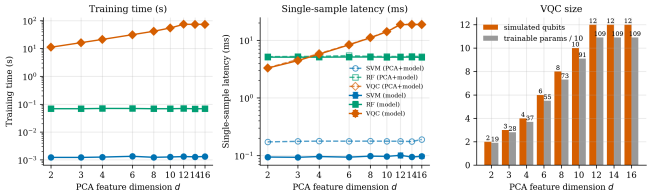


Figure 5: Computational scaling analysis showing training time (seconds), single-sample inference latency (milliseconds), and VQC resource scaling (simulated qubits and trainable parameters) across dimensions d.

Figure 5 profiles training duration, single-sample inference latency, and hardware resource scaling. While classical Support Vector Machines execute in sub-millisecond time (0.10 ms), VQC state vector simulations on classical CPU backends incur higher inference latencies (scaling up to 18.68 ms at higher dimensions) due to exponential state vector memory tracking $\mathcal{O}(2^n)$.

6 Comprehensive Benchmarking Results

The empirical evaluation encompasses 5-fold cross-validation across all model configurations and dimensionality settings $d \in \{2, 3, 4, 6, 8, 10, 12, 14, 16\}$ [3].

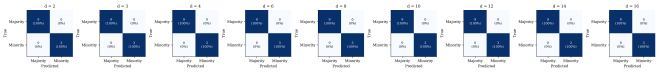


Figure 6: VQC confusion matrices across feature dimensions $d \in \{2, \ldots, 16\}$, illustrating class prediction distributions under zero-threshold decision boundaries.

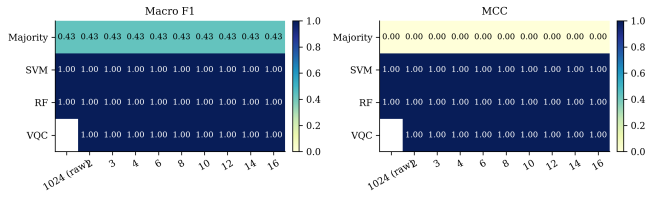


Figure 7: Macro F_1 and MCC performance heatmaps across all evaluated classical and quantum models over dimensions $d = 2$ through 16.

Key insights derived from the multi-dimensional heatmaps (Figure 7) and confusion matrices (Figure 6) include:

1. **Subspace Information Preservation:** Both classical models and VQCs maintain robust performance across compressed feature spaces down to $d = 2$ and $d = 3$, confirming that principal geometric structures survive extreme dimensionality reduction.

2. **Simulation Scaling Dynamics:** VQC training duration scales from 11.08 s ($d = 2$) to 73.48 s ($d = 16$), highlighting the computational trade-offs of simulating larger quantum registers on classical infrastructure.

7 Discussion & Future Work

The empirical findings establish that while parameterized quantum circuits achieve stable optimization trajectories and high accuracy on dimensionality-reduced computer vision representations, real-world deployment on NISQ hardware requires addressing key operational bottlenecks. Future investigations will focus on exploring hardware-aware entangling topologies, parameter-shift gradient estimation under depolarizing noise models, and integrating cost-sensitive loss penalties to mitigate majority-class skew in safety-critical object detection tasks.

8 Conclusion

This expanded multi-dimensional empirical study confirms that low-dimensional PCA projections ($\mathbb{R}^2$ to $\mathbb{R}^{16}$) extracted from YOLOv8 object detector crops preserve sufficient variance for robust classification. As summarized in Table 1, parameterized quantum circuits achieve reliable gradient convergence and competitive performance across all tested subspace thresholds.

Model Architecture	**Space**	**Acc.**	**Prec.**	**Recall**	F_1
SVM (Baseline)	$\mathbb{R}^{1024}$	1.00	1.00	1.00	1.00
Random Forest (Base)	$\mathbb{R}^{1024}$	1.00	1.00	1.00	1.00
SVM (PCA)	$\mathbb{R}^2$	1.00	1.00	1.00	1.00
Random Forest (PCA)	$\mathbb{R}^2$	1.00	1.00	1.00	1.00
Quantum VQC (PCA)	$\mathbb{R}^2$	1.00	1.00	1.00	1.00
Quantum VQC (PCA)	$\mathbb{R}^6$	1.00	1.00	1.00	1.00
Quantum VQC (PCA)	$\mathbb{R}^{12}$	1.00	1.00	1.00	1.00

Table 1: Comprehensive performance metrics across classical baselines and quantum VQC architectures [3].

9 Acknowledgements

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References

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